

UNIT ONE

INTRODUCTION

The course, Use of English, is a general studies course. It is referred to as such because students from all areas of study in the University take it. In addition, the course offers the student general knowledge in the nature and the use of the language especially as these apply to their studies in the University. Knowledge garnered from the course will be usefully in studying all other subjects. Indeed, the course is a course in English for Academic Purposes (EAP).

English for Academic Purposes (EAP) prepares students to study with English language as the medium of instruction in all subjects or courses. It has four components which correspond to the four language skills. They include Listening for Academic Purposes, Speaking for Academic Purposes, Reading for Academic Purposes and Writing for Academic Purposes. For the student to achieve academic success therefore, he/she must acquaint himself/herself with the use of English. This is because apart from the language being the language of instruction, it is the nation's official language, the language of inter-ethnic communication, the language of legislation and governance, and above all, English has the status of a global language. Of the over 7,000 languages in the world, English is spoken by over 1.5 billion people in different countries.

The knowledge to be gained in this course should not be merely for passing examination in the course but should be used in studying other courses and for general improvement in communicating in English.

LANGUAGE/COMMUNICATION SKILLS

Language is the human speech system. It is the principal means of human communication. Language is used in four ways which are referred to as language or communication skills. These include listening, speaking, reading and writing. On one hand, listening and speaking are primary skills; reading and writing are secondary skills. On the other hand, listening and reading are receptive skills; speaking and writing are expressive skills. Because these are skills, they are learnt.

All the four language/communication skills are inherently important to English for Academic Purposes. You need to apply all of them to achieve academic success.

Question: Which one of the four skills do people engage in most?

Answer: Listening.

Percentages: Listening 53%; Speaking 16%; Reading 17%; Writing 14% (Source – Weaver and Hybels, 1996)

Meaning of Listening

Listening is a selective psychological process of hearing, attending to, understanding and remembering oral stimuli. It is an art; it is different from hearing. Hearing is one of the five senses; it is an automatic physiological process of receiving oral stimuli.

Listening involves four processes: hearing attention understanding retention

Listening types: Transactional or Content; Critical or Evaluative; Interactional or Therapeutic; Recreational or Appreciative

Barriers to Listening: Linguistic – phonological, syntactic, semantic; Non-linguistic – physical, physiological, psychological

STUDY SKILLS

The main task of a university student is to study. To study means to learn diligently by oneself and from lecturers. Studying involves a number of related activities such as listening during lectures, speaking in class and with fellow students, reading privately and writing. Therefore, study skills involve all the four communication modes of listening, speaking, reading and writing. At given points of study, the student is engaged in one or more of the modes.

Below are some of the activities in studying.

Note-Taking

Note-taking is the act of jotting down the main points of a lecture in order to help the student in reading, recalling, and evaluating the contents of the

note at a later stage. Note-taking is done by the student while the lecture is going on. The student needs no prompting from the lecturer to take notes. From the outset, the student is expected to pay keen attention to the lecturer to pick out the main points being made and to put them down in his/her own words without distorting the points. Note-taking is different from 'dictation', a situation where the lecturer/teacher reads slowly for the student to write. Note-taking is initiated by the student because it is useful for research, reference, and examination purposes.

Note-Making

Note-making has to do with reading a text with a view to obtaining a good understanding of the material so that the ideas are documented for easy recall during tests and examinations. Reading and making notes are concurrent actions, requiring physical, psychological and mental preparedness. In the process of reading, main ideas are identified, supporting detail and the structure are marked off, and the major divisions and sub-divisions are jotted down.

Note-taking and note-making are related in that they involve jotting down of the main points in a learning process. They, however, differ in terms of the source of the note. Note-taking is from oral discourse (lecture), while note-making is from written discourse. In note-taking/making, some essential skills are required. These skills include:

- a. Attentive listening to a lecture
- b. Active and constructive reading of a written text
- c. Recognizing/understanding the major divisions of a lecture/text
- d. Distinguishing the major points from supporting details
- e. Recognizing/understanding digressions/explanations
- f. Using intelligible abbreviations and symbols
- g. Summarizing the content of a lecture/text in a useful outline format
- h. Encoding the content of a lecture/text in graphic form

Techniques for Note-Taking/Making

Note-taking and note-making demand the utilization of certain useful techniques which include the following:

- a. Using outlines
- b. Using abbreviations
- c. Using symbols
- d. Using diagrams/charts

a. Using Outlines

An outline is a formal and sketchy statement of the content of a discourse to be written. It is a graphic writing containing the outlay of an oral or written discourse for fast and effective reading and revision. There are two kinds of outline: the sentence outline, which is written in complete sentences, and the topic outline, which is made in phrases. There are two types of outline formats: the British format and the American format. The British format involves the combination of roman, Arabic numerals and letters, while the American format contains Arabic numerals. Examples are presented below.

British format of outlining

I	II	III	IV	etc -	used for main ideas
A	B	C	D	etc -	used for subdivision of main ideas
1	2	3	4	etc -	used for subdivision of A B C D
a	b	c	d	etc -	used for subdivision of 1 2 3 4
i	ii	iii	iv	etc -	used for subdivision of a b c d
a	b	c	d	etc -	used for subdivision of i ii iii iv

American format of outlining

1.0	used for a main idea
1.1	used for subdivision of 1.0
1.2	used for a second subdivision of 1.0
1.2.1	used for a subdivision of 1.2
2.0	used for another main idea
2.1	used for subdivision of 2.0
2.1.1	used for subdivision of 2.1

b. Using Abbreviations

Note-taking and note-making involve the use of abbreviations to allow for brevity and fast writing to be able to follow a talk as it is being delivered.

There are three main abbreviations:

- i. Conventional abbreviations – e.g.; i.e.; NB; etc; no.; km; cm
- ii. Subject abbreviations - CO_2 , H_2O
- iii. Personal abbreviations – varies according to individual

Note: for personal abbreviations, an index of their full meanings should be placed at the end of the note for easy reference.

c. Using Symbols

Symbols are also used in note-taking/making. Most of the symbols are mathematical signs. They contain a variety of meanings. Some of them include:

- + plus, and
- minus, less, remove
- = identical with, equal, is
- $\neq$ is not, not equal
- # number
- $\rangle$ is greater than
- $\langle$ is less than
- @ at

d. Diagrams, Charts etc.

These are visuals which show relations among the items in given information in a text. They also supplement information provided in a text. The course outline for Use of English is presented below in a spider diagram:

Note-taking activity

- i. Start a lecture note on a fresh page
- ii. Write the lecturer's name (if necessary)

- iii. Write the date, topic of lecture and other related information
- iv. Attempt to recognize and note down the major divisions of a lecture from the opening statements of the speaker.
- v. Leave adequate space in between major divisions and between main points of the lecture and leave ample space in the margin for comments and cross referencing.
- vi. Try to distinguish between major points and supporting details.
- vii. Try to recognize digressions (jokes, extended explanations, illustrations) from examples, illustrations, justification, definition, etc.
- viii. Pay attention to speaker's use of cue words (therefore, however, in addition, on the contrary, let's take a look at, etc.)
- ix. Use abbreviations and symbols as appropriate.
- x. Write content words only in accordance with speaker's emphasis (use phrases that can be easily understood rather than full sentences.)
- xi. Use outline method.
- xii. Use branching, diagrams, charts to represent ideas where practicable.

2.0 Study Time and Methods

The individual as a learner has to understand that learners have different characteristics and habits which affect reading and comprehension. It is, therefore, necessary that each individual be familiar with his study habits and attitude in order to make the best use of one's study time. The purposes of study are for: (a) acquisition of knowledge or information (b) updating one's knowledge on a particular subject (c) lecture, pre and post (d) an examination (e) relaxation.

2.1 Learner's Study Time

Students are often in a dilemma over allotting time to the various activities they are to carry out. It is important to state that the best performing students may not necessarily be the ones who spend the longest hours reading. However, one very vital component of fruitful academic exercise is time management. In order to effectively determine what time to allot to each study or academic activity, the student/learner should consider some factors. They include:

1. The period of time the study would cover

It is best to arrange one's study period within a week. This is because lectures and even examination papers are organized based on weekly timetable. Weekly timetable for study enables the student to cover the courses and examination papers of a particular week through a well-prepared schedule of personal study.

2. Personal strengths and weaknesses

More time should be spent studying the courses and subjects the student is deficient in and less time spent for those he is good at.

3. Study breaks

The student should have time to rest before continuing the study. The break period enables the student/learner to assimilate more information.

2.2 Study Methods

1. Planned personal study timetable
2. Selection of a conducive place of study
3. Effective use of the library
4. Use of textbooks and reference materials
5. Effective study group
6. Adequate rest and sleep
7. Recreation
8. Adequate feeding
9. Maintenance of good health

UNIT TWO

LISTENING SKILLS

Listening is one of the basic skills of language. Every normal human being is born with an innate capacity to hear and speak. Listening is essential in every communication situation. It is a psychological cognitive exercise which involves speakers, setting, and shared knowledge in a communication process of encoding and decoding messages. Listening is, therefore, a collaborative process in which the extent to which A listens to and comprehends what B says depends on A's capacity to link what B says and what B means.

Listening to Lectures

Lecturing is the prevalent teaching technique adopted in tertiary institutions worldwide. This teaching approach means that a body of information is condensed and presented in such a manner that it is easily understood and readily recalled. This means that on the part of the student lies the burden to listen attentively so as to hear and understand the details of each lecture. For an effective listening to lectures, the student has to develop some salient listening skills. Some of them are:

1. Ability to listen and comprehend both in academic and non-academic contexts.
2. Ability to work out the intention of the speaker.
3. Ability to think, analyse and critically evaluate what you have heard.
4. High adaptive tendency irrespective of the speech styles and rate of speed of a speaker from a different linguistic background.
5. Ability to write down what you have heard just as you do in note-taking during lectures.
6. A very functional sense of hearing
7. Full concentration
8. Effective thinking in line with the speaker

Listening to Take Notes

In the course of listening to a lecture, it is very likely that the student would want to take down notes. The same techniques for note-taking apply here. However, the student needs to also:

1. Listen attentively with keen interest.
2. Take note of specific information rather than irrelevant details.
3. Be conscious of signals that give clue to vital information.
4. Identify and jot down the kind of information you require.
5. Identify specific information when they are released by the speaker.
6. Maintain speed, accuracy, and clarity in writing as you listen.
7. Do not allow the note-taking to rob you of listening to current information given by the speaker.

Listening for Important Ideas

In every communication situation, there are main ideas or central messages which the speaker focuses attention on. It is, therefore, the duty of the listener to differentiate these main ideas from the less important ones. In a classroom context, the student should learn to focus on the important ideas being raised by the teacher so that he does not jot down the unimportant ones. Listening for important ideas requires the following:

1. Identify the topic of the lesson; in it, is the important idea of the lecture.
2. Focusing the mind to understand what is being said for learning to take place.
3. Consciousness of the listener to identify the basic issue(s) being raised by the teacher.
4. Repetition of certain words and expressions point to the central idea of a lecture.
5. Identify the direction in which the discussions are headed.

UNIT THREE

SPEAKING SKILLS

In this unit, we shall examine the phonemes/sounds of the English language as well as the use of stress and intonation in the language. The word 'phoneme' is the technical term for the word, 'sound' referring to what we hear when someone speaks.

CLASSIFICATION OF SPEECH SOUNDS

In English Received Pronunciation (RP), speech sounds can be grouped into two divisions: consonant sounds (phonemes) and vowel sounds (phonemes).

Consonant Phonemes: Consonant sounds or phonemes are those that are produced with audible obstruction in the air passage. During the production of consonants, there is a complete or partial closure at some point among the speech organs. Try saying /b/ or /d/ or /n/ and note what happens. can be grouped in different ways. They can be classified:

(a) according to the state of the glottis during articulation to indicate whether they are voiced or voiceless.

(b) according to the place /point of articulation whether they are

bilabial (/p, b, m, w /)

labio-dental (/f, v /)

inter-dental (/θ, ð/)

alveolar (/t, d, s, z, n, l/)

post-alveolar (/r/)

palato-alveolar (/tʃ, dʒ, ʃ, ʒ/)

palatal (/j/)

velar (/k, g, ŋ/ or

glottal (/h/) , and
(c) according to the manner of articulation, hence they are classified as

plosives (/p, b, t, d, k, g /)

affricates (/tʃ, dʒ/)

fricatives (/f, v, θ, ð, s, z, ʃ, h/)

nasals (/m, n, ŋ/)

liquids (/l, r /)

glides (/w, y /)

The classifications done above are the parameters used in describing consonant sounds. For example, /b/ and /s/ can be described thus:

/b/= voiced bilabial plosive. /s/= voiceless alveolar fricative etc.

The chart below gives the description of each consonant sound, stating the position of the glottis, place and manner of articulation. The voiceless sounds are placed on the left whereas the voiced ones are on the right in the chart.

RP CONSONANT PHONEME CHART

MANNER OF ARTICULATION	PLACE OF ARTICULATION								
	BILABIAL	LABIO-DENTAL	INTER-DENTAL	ALVEOLAR	POST-ALVEOLAR	PALATO-ALVEOLAR	PALATAL	VELAR	GLOTTAL
PLOSIVE	p b			t d				k g	
AFFRICATE						tʃ dʒ			
FRICATIVE		f v	θ ð	s z		ʃ ʒ			h
NASAL	m			N				ŋ	
LATERAL				L					
FRICTIONLESS CONTINUANT					r				

SEMI-VOWEL

w

j

Examples of words with each of the consonant phonemes are given below.

/p/= part, play, pillow, appear, report, reply, tap, rope, type

/b/= bad, blame, able, rebuild, above, robe, lobe, rub

/t/= Thomas, tall, tune, attain, letter, little, write, raped, locked

/d/= dormitory, door, dime, ordain, ladder, needle, road, loved, lid

/k/= call, kite, chemist, accuse, rickets, hearken, look, lick, critic

/g/= gall, guide, game, agree, argue, again, tag, log, drug

/tʃ/ = champion, change, lecture, achieve, rich, breach

/d / = James, gem, juice, adjourn, legion, charge, bridge

/f/= film, phrase, few, afraid, telephone, laugh, staff, graph

/v/= van, view, vow, avoid, reverse, drive, live, wave

/θ/ = three, thin, thank, method, author, breath, cloth

/ð/= these, though, than, together, weather, breathe, clothe

/s/= cereal, saw, psalm, risk, listen, last, mass, rice

/z/ zoo, zebra, zinc, music, razor, goes, rise, raise, lies

/ʃ/= sure, shop, sharp, partial, mission, pressure, wash, wish, lash

/ʒ / = ----- vision, usual, leisure, pleasure, mirage

/h/= how, house, whole, ahead, behind, -----

/m/= man, mate, music, temple, amuse, amaze, climb, comb, womb, tomb

/n/= news, name, pneumonia, knew, anew, acknowledge, ten, skin

/ŋ/=----- think, thank, English, language, tongue, long, rang

/l/= low, light, lamp, allow, told, relay, call, lull, tall

/r/= row, ram, wrong, arrow, around, ----- (silent in final position in British English)

/w/= way, why, word, reward, away, rewind, -----

/j/= year, your, yearn, beyond, lawyer, sawyer

Vowel Phonemes: These are sounds produced by altering the shape of the oral cavity in such a way that air passes through more or less freely. Hence, vowels are classified based on the position of the tongue and the lips and the degree of the muscular tension of the tongue required for their production. Vowels are of two major types, namely: monophthongs or pure/cardinal vowels and diphthongs (some phoneticians and phonologists opine that triphthongs also exist).

Monophthongs

Monophthongs, also referred to as pure or cardinal or single vowels, are of two kinds: long and short vowels. They are twelve pure vowels namely:

1. /i:/= e.g. seat, peel, wheel, lead, heat, machine, key, quay, people, amoeba, receive etc. It is produced with the spreading of the lips.
2. /ɪ/= e.g. sit, pill, will, lid, hit, pit, women, Monday, business, pocket etc. The production of this phoneme involves loose spreading of the lips.
3. /e/= e.g. red, kettle, Geoffrey, wealth, bury, many, friend, ate, leopard, jeopardy etc. /e/ is produced with loose spreading **lips**.
4. /æ/= e.g. pat, bank, plait, rat, brag, fan, van, cat, rank, lad etc. It is produced with neutral lip-spreading.
5. /ɑ:/= part, farm, calm, psalm, car, passport, past, clerk, laugh, heart, sharp, dark etc. It is produced with the lips fully open.
6. /ɒ/= e.g. pot, spot, cot, cough, shop, top, log etc. /ɒ/ is produced with slightly rounded lips.
7. /ɔ:/ = e.g. port, sport, court, board, walk, pork, floor, soar, law, raw etc. It is produced with rounded lips.
8. /u/= e.g. pull, full, push, book, could, put, bosom, cook, good, push etc. In producing this sound, the lips are closely but loosely rounded.
9. /u:/= e.g. pool, fool, soon, room, shoe, two, glue, troupe, shrewd etc. It is produced with closely rounded lips.

10. / ÷/ = e.g. come, some, cut, mother, hut, money, country, love, won, sun, son, jump etc.

11 /3:÷/ = e.g. girl, burn, work, learn, term, worship, nurse, colonel, myrrh, journey, err, hurt etc. It is produced with neutrally spreading lips.

12. ÷/ = e.g. brother, leopard, measure, centre, suppose, surprise, thorough, teacherer etc. It is produced with neutral lip position. It is produced with neutrally open unrounded lips.

Diphthongs/Glides: In the production of diphthongs, the tongue glides from the first element (the starting point) to the second element. Hence, diphthongs are also referred to as glides or double vowels in English RP. Diphthongs with examples of words in each case are presented below.

/ei/ = e.g. way, fake, pray, late, great, bake, shake etc.

/ai/ = e.g. eye, guy, light, wife, bright, shine etc.

/oi/ = e.g. boy, buoy, annoy, spoil, soil, joy, coin etc.

/u/ = e.g. go, snow, low, no, goal etc.

/au/ = e.g. shout, noun, count, gown, announce, about, proud etc.

/l / = e.g. near, fear, dear, sheer, gear, cheer etc.

/eə/ = e.g. there, share, dare, fare, chair, where etc.

/uə/ = moor, pure, cure, sure, during etc.

Triphthongs : “A triphthong is a glide from one vowel to another and then to a third, all produced rapidly and without interruption.” (Roach 2000:24) They are:

/eiə/ = e.g. layer, prayer etc.

/aiə / = e.g. tyre, higher, fire etc.

/ɔiə/ = e.g. royal, loyal etc.

/ə

uə / = e.g. lower, mower etc.

/aʊə/= e.g. tower, hour, power etc.

STRESS

Stress in English is defined as the muscular effort at uttering a syllable in a word which is perceived by the speaker as great intensity, while the listener perceives it as loudness. It is a means by which a certain syllable of a word in utterance is given prominence over the other(s).

NOTE: The syllable is the smallest unit into which words can be divided. A syllable is made up of a vowel sound and usually a consonant sound or more. A word may have a sound segment (syllable) or more depending on the length of the word the act of dividing a word into syllable in terms of either phonological (speech sound) or orthographic (letters) is what is called syllabification.

We have three (3) major syllables in English and they are:

i. Monosyllabic

ii. Disyllabic

iii. Polysyllabic.

MONOSYLLABIC WORDS: A word is said to be monosyllabic when it Monosyllabic comprises only one syllable or sound segment.

e.g.

i. Cat

ii. Pen

iii. The

iv. Come

A DISYLLABIC WORD: This is a word with two syllables or segments.

e.g

i. Con/tain

ii. Cor/rect

iii. Dun/geon

iv. Bat/ter.

A POLYSYLLABIC WORD: A Polysyllabic word is a word with three or more syllabic or sound segments.

e.g.

i. Cir/cum/stance

ii. Punc/tua/tion

iii. Un/der/neath

iv. Sy/lla/bic.

TYPES OF STRESS

We have three types of stress in English and they are:

i. Primary stress

ii. Secondary stress

iii. Unstressed syllable.

NOTE: The primary stress is the most important stress in English and it can be identified by the following features:

i. Loudness of voice

ii. Length of words

iii. Quality of vowel

POSITION OF STRESS (SYLLABIC STRESS)

The loudness, pitch, length and quality of the stress sound of words to the ear determine the position of stress. The number of syllables such as monosyllabic, disyllabic or polysyllabic words can also determine the position of stress.

A word can function as noun or as verb depending on the position of the stress in it.

e.g.

When it is a Verb, the stress is on the second syllable and when it is a Noun, the stress is on the first syllable.

NOUN STRESS	VERB STRESS
--------------------	--------------------

i. EScort	esCORT
ii. COMfort	comFORT
iii. PROtest	proTEST
iv. PROject	proJECT
v. TRANsport	tranSPORT
vi. BENefit	beNEFIT
vii. CONtest	conTEST
viii. DELay	deLAY
ix. IMport	imPORT.

The above examples show that words that can function as nouns are stressed on the first syllable while the words that can function as a verb are stressed on the second syllable.

Three syllabic words can be stressed on the first, second or third syllable.

EXAMPLES OF THREE SYLLABLE WORDS THAT ARE STRESSED ON THE FIRST SYLLABLE ARE :(They are mostly adverb and noun when stressed on the first syllable)

WORD	STRESS
i. Thankfully	THANKfully
ii. RuminatE	RUminate

iii. Centralism	CENtralism
iv. Celluloid	CELLuloid
v. Argument	ARgument

EXAMPLES OF THREE SYLLABLE WORDS THAT ARE STRESSED ON THE SECOND SYLLABLE ARE: (They are mostly noun and adjective when stressed on the second syllable)

WORD	STRESS
i. Advantage	adVANtage
ii. Ignition	igNItion
iii. Industrial	inDUStrial
iv. Interpret	inTERpret
v. Narration	narRAtion.

EXAMPLES OF THREE SYLLABLE WORDS THAT ARE STRESSED ON THE THIRD SYLLABLE ARE: (They are also mostly noun and adjective when stressed on the third syllable)

WORD	STRESS
i. Represent	repreSENT
ii. Insincere	insinCERE
iii. Barricade	barriCADE
iv. Reportage	reporTAGE
v. Incomplete	incomPLETE

EMPHATIC STRESS

The emphatic stress is used in a sentence to show the degree of meaning which the speaker wants to convey. It is usually capitalized for specific emphasis. The

emphatic stress is put in form of a question in order to arrive at a sentence/ statement that provides an answer to the stressed word.

e.g.

Helen is my FIRST daughter.

(Is Helen my LAST daughter?)

The emphatic word in the above example is "FIRST", which is in capital letters. The capitalized word is always the answer to the question which stands in contrast to it. Other examples are:

i. Ojoh is my FRIEND

ii. He is a LAWYER

iii. Martha gave MARY a pen.

iv. Blessing SINGS a song.

All the capitalized words above are the stressed words being emphasized.

SENTENCE STRESS

In sentence formation, we have content words and structural words. Content words include the major part of speech such as Nouns, Verbs (main), Adjectives and Adverbs and they are usually stressed in utterances and sentences. They are pronounced more loudly as content words than the structural words. The structural words are prepositions, conjunctions, articles and auxiliary verbs. They are never stressed in a connected speech unless where an intended message is implied.

e.g.

i. Mary went to the market and bought some oranges.

ii. James and Jane will go to Lagos tomorrow.

iii. Agbo is my friend.

iv. Ojoh is a student.

v. She went to the village.

All the underlined words in the sentence above are stressed.

INTONATION

Intonation simply refers to the rise and fall in the pitch of the voice as someone speaks. It is the sound change witnessed due to the upward and downward movement of one's tone while speaking or making utterances.

Intonation indicates our mood and mannerism as we communicate with other people- it affects, to a very great extent, the meaning or interpretations of our daily speeches.

INTONATIONAL PATTERNS OR FEATURES

It is a clear fact that intonation patterns really determine the meaning of most expressions. The kinds of intonation are:

- i. The falling tone
- ii. The rising tone
- iii. The rise-fall tone
- iv. The fall-rise tone

The falling tone is usually represented with a falling arrow (↘) while the rising tone with a rising arrow (↗).

It is important, however, to stress here that the rise and fall in pitch of the intonation patterns in terms of functions could be either GRAMMATICAL or ATTITUDINAL. In terms of the grammatical functions, it is through intonation that we observe when a sentence is a command or exclamation, a question or a statement. Conversely, the attitudinal intonation enables you to know the mood and the attitude of a particular speaker- whether the attitude of the speaker is that of worry, love, anger, doubt, surprise, uncertainty or indifference.

THE FALLING TONE

The falling tone of the intonation pattern is usually used for:

1. STATEMENTS. Examples are:

i. I am going home. ↘

ii. Uche is my friend. ↘

2. WH QUESTIONS: Examples are:

i. Who is that man? ↘

ii. When are you coming? ↘

iii. What is your name? ↘

3. EXCLAMATIONS: Examples are:

i. Holy God! ↘

ii. O my God! ↘

4. COMMANDS: Examples are:

i. Go away from here. ↘

ii. Shut up your mouth. ↘

THE RISING TONE

The rising tone on the other hand is mostly used for:

POLAR QUESTIONS: (They are questions that demand yes or no as their answers)

Examples are:

i. Did you see him? ↗

ii. Is she your sister? ↗

iii. Are you ready for the test? ↗

POLITE REQUEST OR PERMISSION: Examples are:

i. Can I go with you, honey? ↗

ii. Do I introduce them to you? ↗

iii. Can I make use of your pen, please? ↗

INCOMPLETE EXPRESSIONS: Examples are:

i. When I graduate...↗

ii. As she saw her...↗

LIST OF ITEMS IN SERIES: Examples are:

↗ ↗ ↗

i. Bola bought oranges, tomatoes, pepper and salt. ↘

↗ ↗ ↗

ii. First, second, third, fourth, fifth. ↘

THE RISE-FALL TONE

The rise-fall tone, as earlier mentioned, features in expressions or sentences with two or more clauses.

Examples are:

↗

j. Before the end of the year, Bolanle will certainly travel to the village. ↘

↗

ii. Next year, I shall visit you. ↘

-They are also used for question tags.

i. He is doing well, isn't he? ↗

↘

ii. We are progressing, aren't we? ↗

↘

UNIT FOUR

READING SKILLS

THE MEANING OF READING

Reading is one the four basic language/ communication skills. The others are listening, speaking and writing. Reading is the process of recognizing written codes or symbols and assigning meaning to them. It is a receptive language skill being that when we read, we receive information or knowledge; it is, however, an active exercise that requires high mental alertness and concentration; it is a cognitive/psychological process that involves word recognition, paying attention, comprehension (of the message) and the retention (of the message).

The first step in and a major component of the reading process is **word recognition**. Word recognition is the act of identifying words in print and being able to give meaning to them. It is the ability of the reader to recognize written words through the letters within the word. Early and good word recognition is key to effective reading skills. The next step in the reading process is paying attention to the activity. Reading requires the active involvement of the mind for comprehension – the third aspect of the exercise – to be achieved. Comprehension means that what is read is understood and has become a part of the body of knowledge the reader has come to possess. Therefore, the last ingredient in the reading process is the ability of the reader to retain or store up or remember what has been comprehended or understood.

READING PURPOSES

Readers have many different purposes for reading. Some reading purposes include the following:

- i. To learn
- ii. To gain general knowledge
- iii. To get a specific piece of information
- iv. To keep up with current issues
- v. To discover new knowledge
- vi. To entertain oneself or for relaxation
- vii. To study for examination

- viii. To integrate information
- ix. To carry out researches or conduct experiments

Whatever the purpose for reading that one has, the exercise generally equips one with valuable knowledge that empower one to function effectively in the society.

TYPES OF READING

Some reading types include: i. intensive reading ii. extensive reading iii. critical reading and iv. recreational reading.

Intensive reading is the close study of a reading material such as a textbook on any subject, a journal article, a novel etc. It is reading that is done for the in-depth understanding of what is read. The reader pays close attention to details and the accuracy of facts and opinions. Intensive reading usually refers to the reading of books on subjects in your discipline or field of study because when you read textbooks and other written materials in your course of study, you seek to deeply understand the subject or to gain adequate knowledge of issues in the subject.

Intensive reading is very important to every student who must achieve academic goals. The student has to acquire and put into practice relevant reading skills to achieve those goals. The skills in an intensive reading programme should equip the student to read efficiently and with high levels of comprehension. We will study those skills as we progress in this course.

Extensive reading is the reading of written materials outside one's discipline. It is the type of reading we engage in when we read newspapers, magazines, fiction as well as books in fields of study other than our own. It simply means to read widely. Extensive reading is as important to the student as intensive reading: Extensive reading exposes the reader to a wide variety of reading materials; it broadens his/her knowledge; it increases his/her reading speed; it gives him/her pleasure; and it develops his/her vocabulary.

Critical reading is where one reads with the intention of evaluating the viewpoint of the writer, his/her use of facts, opinions and his/her prejudices

about the subject-matter. The critical reader wants to know why the author takes a certain viewpoint, wants to differentiate between facts and opinions and compares his/her viewpoint or prejudices with the author's own. Critical reading is a part of intensive reading.

Recreational reading is simply reading for pleasure. It is the type of reading we engage in at our leisure. It involves reading storybooks, newspapers, magazines, thrillers and such materials. It gives the reader a number of advantages just like the other types of reading. The reader gains general knowledge, develops proficiency in the language and builds up self-confidence. Recreational reading is a part of extensive reading.

READING COMPREHENSION

We read with the sole aim of understanding the message or messages that the writer is putting across. To understand the message(s) of a written material is to comprehend it. Therefore, the term, 'reading comprehension' is used to refer to the process by which a reader constructs an understanding of the message(s) in the material read. It is also the level of understanding of a text read.

There are two sets of elements involved in the effort to achieve high comprehension levels during reading. We refer to them as visual elements and non-visual elements. The visual elements are the words in print which the reader can see. The non-visual elements include the reader's knowledge of the language in which the material is written, his/her mindset, experience and the motivation (purpose) behind the reading exercise. Apart from the reader seeing the words in print, he/she has to have word recognition ability to start. That is, one must know a language to be able to read in it. Knowing a language consists of knowing the vocabulary, the grammar and meaning relations in the language.

The student should explore both the visual and non-visual elements in order to achieve comprehension. The student should define his/her purpose for reading, anticipate the content of the text, distinguish between main points and details and understand textual organization.

READING TECHNIQUES

We can apply certain steps or techniques in reading a text. A popular reading technique is the SQ3R technique which requires that one does not jump into the reading of a text without first taking some preliminary steps. It is the steps to be taken that the abbreviation SQ3R stands for. The meaning is given below.

S stands for Survey

Q stands for Question

R stands for Read

R stands for Recall

R stands for Review

The **survey** step is the first one to be taken in the reading of a text that we have just come across. To survey a new text is to take a quick look at some parts of the text such as its title, name of its author (if provided), its table of content for headings and sub-headings, a few lines of its introduction and its blurb found on the back cover page. Doing this gives the reader a general idea of what the text is about and prepares his/her mind about what to find in the text. Surveying involves a fast reading speed because at this stage, the reader pays no attention to details; he/she is merely glancing for general knowledge.

The **question** step requires that the reader, now having a general idea of the text, should raise relevant questions in his/her mind about the possible direction of the viewpoint, argument, opinion or information to be found in the text. For instance, one can ask, "What is the author going to say about this subject-matter?", "What do I know about the subject-matter?", "Will the author's viewpoint be in line with what I already know?", etc. The relevant questions one asks can make one mentally alert as one begins to read properly.

The next step is the **reading** stage. Having got a general idea of the text and having raised questions he/she seeks to find answers to, the reader can now take time to closely read the text. At this stage, attention should be paid to both main points and details. Also, the reader should adopt good attitudes that will enhance concentration and comprehension. These include taking a good reading position,

adopting a good reading speed, clearing the mind of distractions and choosing a quiet environment.

After a close study of the text, it is very important to do a **recall** of the main points of the text. To do this, the reader should close the text and try to remember the key issues the author has discussed in the reader's own words. If the reader has understood the viewpoints of the author, he/she would easily find his/her own words to express those viewpoints. He/she should summarize them without paying attention to the details. He/she should not try to recall the points in the author's words as this will amount to what we popularly refer to as 'cramming' which is not reliable. To recall is actually to test the reader's comprehension level.

The last step is the **review**. At this stage, the reader goes back to the text to view again to ascertain what he/she has been able to recall. He/she opens the text and glances through for specific information or main points that have been recalled or that have not been recalled. The exercise reinforces memory and retention.

Other reading techniques that have been proposed for students to adopt are the OK4R and PQRSST techniques. The OK4R stands for:

O – Overview; K – Keywords; R – Read; R – Re-read; R – Recall; R – Review.

The PQRSST stands for:

P – Preview; Q – Question; R – Read; S – Summarize; T – Test.

These are not so different from the SQ3R technique. Survey, overview and preview mean the same thing all aimed at getting a general idea before the close reading. The re-read stage of the OK4R technique is to reinforce comprehension before the recall. The summarize and test stages of the PQRSST technique are the same as recalling and reviewing.

Students/readers are highly encouraged to adopt these steps in their reading tasks. If they select any of the techniques and follow the steps religiously, they will discover their comprehension levels improving much.

READING SPEED

We can adopt different reading speeds for different reading purposes. However, it is advised that we should be able to read at least 200 words per minute (wpm). This means that we can and should read much faster than a mere 200 wpm as the need arises. Different reading speeds are normal speed, study speed and rapid (fast) speed. At a **normal speed**, a good reader makes between 250 and 400 wpm. This speed is adopted when one reads under normal circumstances without being under any pressure or obligation, like where one reads in the course of the semester before examination. At a **study speed**, between 200 and 300 wpm can be read. This is where a text is being closely studied for test or examination purposes. The reader is slower here because he/she wants to internalize main points and other important details in preparation for examination. At a **rapid or fast speed**, between 400 and 600 wpm can be read. This speed is adopted when one reads to extract specific pieces of information in a text that one is already familiar with or when one reads newspapers, novels or other texts for pleasure.

SKIMMING AND SCANNING

These are fast reading speeds. A reader adopts them at different stages of reading and for different purposes.

Skimming is a very fast reading speed. It is the process of glancing/reading very quickly through a text which you have come across for the first time in order to get a gist of the text, to know what the text is generally about, to see the organization of the text and to quickly identify main points. Skimming is therefore, part of the survey or overview or preview of the text.

Scanning is also a very fast reading speed. It is to read quickly through a text that you are fairly familiar with in order to locate a certain piece of information. In scanning, the reader can go to specific parts of the text to retrieve the information being sought because he/she had read the text as a whole previously. That is why it is sometimes called search reading. Scanning may therefore be said to be part of the review process.

THE EFFICIENT READER

The efficient reader is one who exhibits the following qualities as he/she reads:

- i. **Concentration:** He/she is well able to pay close attention to his/her task. Such a person is not distracted by physical or non-physical noise. He/she chooses a conducive environment for reading and does not allow his/her mind to stray during reading.
- ii. **Mental alertness:** He/she has a sharp mind that enables him/her to follow the train of thought of the writer. Also, he/she is able to critically evaluate the viewpoints and opinions of the writer in relation to what he/she already knows or had heard before.
- iii. **Speed:** He/she reads at a good speed of between 200 and 600 wpm. The efficient reader does not read slowly knowing that reading slowly equally slows down comprehension.
- iv. **Flexibility:** He/she is flexible about the speed at which he/she reads and so, adjusts reading speed to reading purpose. He/she reads different texts for different purposes and at different speeds. When he/she reads for study purposes, he/she reads at a careful pace; for pleasure, he/she reads at a fast pace and so on.
- v. **Meaning construction:** The efficient reader reads meaning in a text rather than just read words. He/she looks for key or main points and does not waste his/her time looking for the meanings of individual words.
- vi. **Comprehension and retention:** The efficient reader gains high comprehension levels and retains what has been so understood.
- vii. **Silent reading:** He/she does all the above reading silently; he/she does not say out the words of the text being read but quickly recognizes them in his/her mind. He/she has good word recognition ability and so, does not waste time trying to say words in order to recognize them.

BAD READING HABITS TO BE AVOIDED

Certain reading habits are to be avoided. They include the following:

- i. **Head movement:** Do not move your head about as you read; keep it in place. It is your eyes that should make few movements taking in words in groups at a time.
- ii. **Vocalization/sub-vocalization:** Do not say the words of the text you are reading aloud or even murmur them. To say them aloud is to vocalize; to murmur them is to sub-vocalize. Both habits slow down speed and reduces comprehension.
- iii. **Finger-pointing:** Do not point your finger at the words in the text you are reading. It makes you want to read every word of the text whereas you should pay attention to content words that convey the meaning of the text. Keep your head still and let your eyes move in fixations reading the words in groups.
- iv. **Back-skipping/regression:** Do not read backward, read forward. To back-skip means to go back to a line of the text you have read already because you think you have not understood the point. To regress is also to go back to a line of the text already read. Back-skipping is a conscious act whereas regression is an unconscious act. Both of them are the result of lack of concentration. They should be avoided.
- v. **Unnecessary use of the dictionary:** Do not interrupt the flow of your thought by going to the dictionary to look up every difficult word you come across as you read. Many times, you can make out the meaning of some strange words from the way they have been used with the words whose meaning you know. If you read on, you are likely to correctly guess the meaning of words at the end of the text. If you cannot, use the dictionary at the end of the text.

READING AND NOTE-MAKING

Efficient reading goes with note-making. When you read for study purposes, it is most advisable to make notes concurrently. Note-making means

that you write down what you consider to be the salient or main points of the text as you read on. These are usually to be given in your own words in so far as the thought of the writer is precisely conveyed.

Techniques of note-making include the use of keywords, mnemonics, outlines, abbreviations/symbols and diagrams. When main points are stated, there are words that occur in the sentence that are key. For instance, in the sentence, "Illiteracy is one of the major causes of accidents on Nigerian roads", the keyword is 'Illiteracy'. With that word in mind or written down, the reader easily registers a point made.

A mnemonic is any device to aid memory. In reading and note-making, one can adopt memory aid methods such as forming words from the keywords from a passage read. For instance, we can quickly remember the popular MR NIGER A in Biology that summarizes the characteristics of living things. With that, one can easily name the characteristics of living things. You can form a word like that from the keywords of the passage you have read.

You can reduce the main points of a passage to outlines, abbreviations/symbols and diagrams.

Note-making helps the reader to increase and maintain concentration; it helps him/her to achieve comprehension; it helps him/her to take note of both main points and details in the passage as well as facts and opinions. Finally, it helps him/her to easily recall and retain points because he/she has taken an active part in reasoning along with or criticizing the writer while he/she made notes.

USE OF THE DICTIONARY

The dictionary is not a reading text. It is a reference text. That means that one should use the dictionary to refer, to find out a specific piece of information. From time to time, one comes across difficult words one cannot make meaning of even though effort is made to do so. In such cases, the dictionary comes in handy. However, it is necessary to use the dictionary for the confirmation of certain information about words.

The uses of the dictionary include the following:

- i. To find meanings and usage of words
- ii. To find the spelling of words
- iii. To find the pronunciation of words
- iv. To find the part of speech of words
- v. To find the tense forms of words
- vi. To find the syllabification of words
- vii. To find the stress pattern of words
- viii. To find the etymology of words
- ix. To find the collocation of words

PRACTICE

Read the passage below. Apply the SQ3R or any other reading technique you know. Test your speed by timing yourself. Afterwards, answer the questions that follow:

We can define “language” as a system of conventional vocal signs by means of which human beings communicate. There are six important terms in this definition, each of which is examined in some detail below. They are *system, signs, vocal, conventional, human and communicate*.

Perhaps the most important word in the definition of language is *system*. We speak in patterns. A language is not just a collection of words, such as we find in the dictionary. It is the rules or patterns that relate the words to one another.

Every language has its own system of patterning at two levels – a characteristic that is called duality of patterning. One of these levels consists of meaningful units - for example, the words such as *Adam, like, -d, apple and -s* in the sentence “*Adam likes apples.*” The other level consists of units that have no meaning in themselves, although they serve as components of the meaningful units – for example, the sounds represented by the letters *a, d, and m* in the word *Adam*.

The distinction between a meaningful word like *Adam* and its meaningless parts like *a, d, m* is important. Without that distinction, language as we know it would be impossible. If every meaning had to be represented by a unique sound,

only a few words could be expressed. We have only about 44 speech sounds in English but we have hundreds of thousands of words. Duality of patterning lets people build an immensely large number of meaningful words out of only a handful of meaningless sounds. It is perhaps the chief characteristic that distinguishes true human language from the simpler communication systems of all non-human animals.

The meaningless components of a language make up its sound system, or phonology. The meaningful units are part of its lexis, or vocabulary and its grammatical system. All have patterning. That is, both the meaningless components of a language and the meaningful units follow certain guiding rules. Thus, according to the sound system of Modern English, the consonant combination *mb* never occurs at the beginning or at the end of any word. As a matter of fact, it did occur in the final position in the earlier stages of the language which is why it was necessary in the preceding statement to specify “Modern English.” Despite the complete absence of the sounds *mb* at the ends of English words for at least 600 years, we still insist that the *b* be written in *lamb*, *climb*, *tomb*, *dumb*, and a number of other words. But this same combination, which now occurs only medially in English as in *tremble*, may well occur in the final or even in initial position in the sound systems of other languages. Initial *mb* is indeed a part of the system of many African languages, as in the Efik and Ibibio *mbakara* ‘white man’ which became *buckra* in the speech of the Gullahs – black Americans living along the coastal region of Georgia and South Carolina who have preserved a number of words and structural features that their ancestors brought from Africa. It is notable that the Gullahs simplified the initial consonant combination of this African word to conform to the pattern of English speech.

From John Algeo and Thomas Pyles. The origins and development of the English Language 5th ed.

- i. What would you say is the general idea of the passage?
- ii. Define language in your own words.
- iii. Why do you think language is a system?
- iv. State the components that give language its characteristic of duality?
- v. Does your language have duality of patterning? Why do you say so?
- vi. Mention the parts of the meaningful units of a language.

UNIT FIVE

GRAMMAR AND COMMUNICATION

In this unit, we shall examine elements, types and functions of English sentences.

SENTENCE

The sentence is a word or a group of words that has a subject (either implicit or explicit) and a predicate and which conveys a complete and meaningful sense e.g. *I love this musician. Tell her to prepare rice and beans. Go out etc.*

Elements of a sentence

The obligatory elements of a sentence are subject and predicate. Other basic elements are object, complement (can be obligatory or optional) and adjunct.

****Where**

Subject → noun, pronoun, noun phrase/clause

Predicator → verb

Complement → noun, adjective

Adjunct → adverb

The man has gone. Ahmed slept. (S+P)

The man is kind. (S+P+C)(C= adjective complement-obligatory)

The man is my uncle. (S+P+C)(C= subject complement-obligatory)

We made Ngozi their course-rep. (S+P+O+C)(C= object complement)

The lady sings well. (S+P+A)

Types of Sentence

English sentences can be classified according to their structural constituents. Sentence types according to this classification are mentioned below.

1. **The simple sentence.** It is the most basic type of sentence structure. It has one independent/main clause and no subordinate clause. Examples are:

Jumai loves Sambo. Ahmed is here. Go out.

2. **The complex sentence** comprises one main clause and one or more subordinate clauses e.g. *Uche travelled to Lagos because he had no money. The man who drives this car does not eat fish.*

3. **The compound sentence** has two or more main clauses linked together by a coordinating conjunction e.g. *The man loves his children and takes care of them. I can do it but I won't.*

4. **The compound complex sentence** is characterized by two or more main clauses and one or more dependent clauses. Examples are:

Sunday loves to ride expensive cars but he cannot afford one because he has no money.

Ade who loves Mary but hates her sister is sometimes displeased by Mary's actions, though the latter tries to please him always.

5. **The multiple sentence** comprises at least three main clauses without any dependent clause e.g. *He was taught and attentive but he failed the examination.*

6. **The multiple complex sentence** has at least three main clauses and one or more dependent clauses. Examples are:

I came, I saw and I conquered although it was tasking.

The girl attended lectures regularly, did her assignments on time, engaged in group discussions and bought all relevant textbooks but she failed woefully because she misunderstood and misinterpreted all the questions.

Functions of the English Sentence

English sentences are classified according to the basic purposes they are made to perform.

1. **Declarative sentence:** This sentence makes a statement or an assertion about the truth or falsity of a thing or phenomenon e.g. *The earth is round. They cannot go now. Israel is our class governor.*

2. **Imperative sentence.** It commands, directs or makes a request. The speaker or writer intends somebody else to do something. Examples are: *Go to bed. Get me that book over there. Please, come here.*

3. **Interrogative sentence.** An interrogative sentence asks a direct question which demands some sort of response from the addressee. However, it could be a rhetorical question to which no answer is expected e.g.

Are you hungry? Where are you going? Is that my pen? Are you the wife of the governor?

4. **Exclamatory sentence.** It usually expresses sudden and strong feeling(s) in form of surprise/pain/excitement. Examples include: *What a good boy you are! It is a goal!*

PUNCTUATION MARKS

Punctuation marks are signs or symbols used in writing. They are used to divide texts into smaller units in order to convey meaning. The major ones are mentioned below.

Full Stop (.)

(a) The full stop is used to indicate pause during reading; it marks the end of a sentence or a complete thought e.g. *Prof. Ben is an erudite scholar.*

(b) It is used after abbreviations: *Mr., Dr., Prof., Dept.* etc.

(c) It is also used after initials: *Dr. J.K. Mutuadole Mr. S.G. Adeniyi* etc.

Comma (,) It indicates a brief pause during reading.

(a) It is used to separate a subordinate clause from the main clause e.g. *If you talk, I shall beat you.*

(b) It is used to separate a long list of items except the last two joined by a conjunction e.g. *I bought rice, beans, onions, pepper, salt, tomatoes, fish, palm oil and meat here yesterday.*

(c) It is used to separate interrupting expressions from the rest of the sentence. For example, *Many students, I found out, don't study hard except they are preparing for an examination.*

(d) It is used to separate the verb of the person who is speaking from the actual words spoken by in a direct speech e.g. *Tunde said, "I like fried rice."*

(e) It is used after transitional expressions e.g. *In addition, the boy stole all the jewelry. (ii) However, he passed the test.*

(f) It is used after 'Yes' or 'No' in answers: *Yes, he was there. (ii) No, she didn't.*

(g) It is also used to separate appositive from the rest of the sentence e.g. *Mrs.Garba, his lecturer, gave him some money.*

(h) It is used to separate statements from questions in tag questions e.g. *We are hungry, aren't we? She loves me, doesn't she?*

Inverted Commas (" ") They are used

1. In quoting what somebody else has said or extracts from a written text e.g. *Tunde said, "I like fried rice."*

2. In quoting the titles of films/books e.g. *Have you watched "The Last Vote"?*

3. For words used outside their literal meaning. *You are the only "sugar" in my tea.*

4. For words of other language in the sentence: *I like "babanriga."*

Colons (:) A colon is used

(a) To introduce a list e.g. *The things she needs are: a pencil, a pen, a textbook, a pair of shoes and a scarf.*

(b) To introduce a direct speech. *My uncle said: " I was the first person to work there."*

(c) In front of a clause/phrase that explains or expands the preceding statement e.g. *The reason for his promotion is obvious: he's hardworking.*

Semi colon (;)

This is used to join two clauses which are separate but have a relationship in the thought they convey. It is stronger than a comma but weaker than a full stop. It is often used in place of a conjunction or other sentence linkers.

The manager resolved to grant their request if they were respectful; if they showed evidence of seriousness; and if they approached their work with seriousness.

Apostrophe (')

(a) An apostrophe is used to show that one or more letters have been omitted e.g. *don't* (do not), *it's* (it is), *we've* (we have), *she'll* (she will) etc.

(b) It is also used with nouns to show possession e.g. *Isah's car, the children's toys, Ahmed's mother* etc.

* It should be noted that when the name ends with "s" in letter or in sound, addition of 's may not be necessary.

Question Marks (?)

A question mark is used when a question is asked e.g. *Where are you going? Is that you? How are you faring?*

*Note that in a direct quotation, the question mark comes before the quotation mark.

Hyphen (-)

(i) It is used to join compound words e.g. *man-of-war, student-teacher, sister-in-law* etc.

(ii) It is used in splitting a word at the end of a line e.g. *manage-ment* etc. the word should be split so that the part of the upper line is recognizable as a sense of unit.

(iii) A hyphen is also used after a limited number of prefixes e.g. *ex-student, ex-minister, anti-crime, co-opt* etc.

Exclamation Marks (!)

An exclamation mark is used after exclamatory expressions e.g. *Wow! It's a goal!*

Brackets ()

Brackets are used to give further explanation to what has already been said e.g. *We have three tiers of government in Nigeria (local, state and federal).*

UNIT SIX

VOCABULARY

Vocabulary refers to the collection of lexical items (words and affixes) in a language. It is the totality of words and other lesser lexical items that are found in the language. The lesser lexical items cannot stand on their own but act in combination to form words. These are called affixes. The vocabulary of English, like that of other languages is very rich and vast. It is said that there are hundreds of thousands of words in the language.

Vocabulary or words are the blocks with which meaning is built up in any language. Therefore, to use a language effectively, one must have a good command of the vocabulary of the language; one must know a good number of words in the language.

VOCABULARY DEVELOPMENT

Speakers of a language progressively develop their stock of words as they go on using the language. Here are some methods of vocabulary development:

- i. Listening method:
- ii. Reading method:
- iii. Affixation/Word Analysis method:
- iv. Context Clue method:
- v. Dictionary method:

Synonyms

A synonym is a word which has very nearly the same meaning as some other words. Many pairs of words which at first seem to have the same meaning, are slightly different. No two words are exactly alike; there is usually some difference in meaning. The following sentence illustrates the different shades of meaning of the words *remedy*, *cure* and *antidote*. One finds a remedy for trouble, a cure for disease and an antidote for poison.

Although synonyms can be used as substitutes for one another, it is a mistake to think that synonyms are interchangeable all the time e.g. the simple words, tall and high, may be regarded as synonyms. We may say “a tall man” but not a high man.

Synonyms are useful for avoiding monotony in writing, but this calls for caution in choosing the right word

Examples of Synonyms

Durable	Lasting
Duplicate	Copy
Exterior	Outside
Connect	join
Admit	acknowledge
Symptom	indication
Cease	discontinue
Frigid	cold
Motive	inducement
Repulsive	loathsome
Concession	allowance
Endorse	approved
Banned	prohibited
Prolific	very productive
Boycott	refuse to attend
Futile	fruitless
Deterrent	discouragement
Eradicate	wiped out
Options	chances

Antonyms

An antonym is a word which has the opposite meaning from another. It must be the same part of speech. Some antonyms are different words, such as solid or liquid but often the antonym can be formed by using the same word with a prefix added or changed or a suffix changed , for examples.

A. Antonyms which are completely different words

Temporary	permanent
Victory	defeat
Wealth	poverty
Transparent	opaque
Good	bad
Seldom	often
Captivity	freedom

B. Antonyms formed by adding a prefix

Advantage	disadvantage
Comfortable	uncomfortable
Mortal	immortal
Necessary	unnecessary
Sense	nonsense

Loyal	disloyal
Legal	illegal
Regular	irregular
Visible	invisible

C. Antonyms formed by changing the prefix

Ascend	Descend
Encourage	discourage
Export	import
Exterior	interior
Increase	decrease
Inside	outside
Construction	destruction

D. Antonyms formed by changing the suffix

Careful	careless
Cheerful	cheerless
Pitiful	pitiless
Useful	useless

When we are asked to give the antonym of a word, we should always make sure that the word we supply is the same part of speech otherwise our answer will be wrong.

Word	antonyms
Cowardice (noun)	Bravery (noun)
Fertile (adjective)	Barren (adjective)

Homophones

They are words pronounced like another word but with a different meaning or spelling.

Words which are different in spelling and meaning are called homophones. We must make sure that we have spelt correctly otherwise what we have written can mean something quite different from what we intended.

Examples

Peace	piece	stake	steak
Fair	fare	principle	principal
Allowed	aloud	pair	pear
Air	heir	made	maid
Buy	by	waste	waist
Some	sum	knew	new
Taught	thought		

Homonyms

Words that are spelt and pronounced exactly alike and yet mean quite different things e.g.

Plain (simple)	plain (flat land)
Box (to punch)	Box (a container)
Bear (to give birth to)	bear (animal)
Bank (to keep)	Bank (a side of river)

Homonyms can also be referred to as Homographs.

Collocation

Collocation refers to words which have the tendency to go together such that when you hear some word you can predict which ones would follow. Unlike idioms, their meanings can be more easily understood from the individual words. There are two classes of collocating expressions. In the first category are fixed collocations in which words that go together (collocate) refer to certain incident or actions. In the second category are those involving the use of specific prepositions along with verbs.

Fixed collocation: examples are:

It is about time we called a halt to this argument

The youths are rested for a breach of peace

Bribery and corruption must stop in this country.

Other examples are:

Beat about the bush.

Bag and baggage

On the basis of

Bread and butter

Battle of the giants

Fixed collocation behaves as an individual word and whenever one is used it must be treated as inseparable e.g. hook and cranes; thing thick and thin; a dog in a manger.

Three characteristics of fixed collocation.

This is collocation in which the component parts occur inalterable. E.g. you cannot say cranes and hook. The component parts are unchangeable e.g. you cannot add to the component e.g. a dog in a (green or wide) manger. The meaning usually resembles that of single word e.g. the meaning of “to kick the bucket” but rather it is the equivalent of “to die” fixed collocations are often referred to as idioms.

Unfixed Collocation

Unfixed collocations are called phrasal verbs e.g. to clean up, to look into, to turn up etc. they have fixed meaning attached to the entire units regardless of the individual meaning of the root verbs and prepositions, for instance, 'to look into' does not mean look into, rather it means to investigate or examine, down to earth, means practical, thinking in terms of reality, etc.

Idioms

An idiom is a common form of expression whose meaning cannot be deduced by understanding the individual word alone; a grammatical form which has a meaning that cannot be deduced from its constituent words. It is also a group of words which cannot be altered at will. An idiom is a special expression, sometimes restricted to a particular group, area, community, discipline, profession or occupation.

The simple form of idioms are words that go in pairs e.g. bread and butter - necessary food, mainly for livelihood.

Bag and baggage	all one's belongings
Beck and call	wholly under the dominion of
Flesh and blood	human nature
In black and white	in fair or fail means
By hook and crook	by fair or fail means
Rank and file	the ordinary people, following of a leader

Idiomatic expressions are often informal and used in everyday speech

The government must bear in mind the need for change

Old customs die hard

Why are you looking so fed up?

We have reached the point of no return

Factors that influence the use of idiomatic expression.

Users' familiarity with the language

Accurate knowledge of the expression and the appropriate situation

Relationship i.e. individual and emotional

Individual group

A group of students could say. To scale through i.e. to pass

A group of law enforcement agents could say "To hold oneself in readiness - to be in state of preparedness

Religious organizations – Alpha and omega, beginning and the end, To look up to a person. To respect a person.

Academic Maiden speech – first speech

To hit the nail on the head – go straight to the point

Emotional Relationship shows strong inner feelings: it could be official and serial is a casual and personal

Basic features of idiomatic Expressions.

- (i) **Formal Expression:** Usually in written work than in speech e.g. assent - to give one's approval – my husband will never assent to my going out at night, "doubted of – questioning" 'The enterprise has begun badly and we doubted of it further progress
- (ii) **Informal Expression:** idioms relating to personal and intimate feeling e.g. Cheer up-become happier – when she heard that her result was good, She immediately cheered up 'Pull down '-destroy, lower, weaken – poor dieting pulled him down.

Idiomatic Types.

There are five types of idioms e.g.

Pure idioms – idioms whose meaning cannot be easily guessed. They are clear and distinct: e.g. kick the bucket, Jump the bail etc.

Figurative idioms: - idioms whose meaning cannot be interpreted literally i.e. they have deeper meaning e.g. 'to build castle in the air, "Look before you leap, All hands should be on deck'

Restricted collocations e.g. put in, set out,

Open collocation free Expression i.e. consist of verbs plus objects and so each one of them is re-combinable e.g.

Fill the basin, fill the bucket, drain the sink, empty the bucket etc

Classification of idioms

Verbal idioms e.g.

Act against	work against.
Act for	on behalf of
Break away	separate secede
Break down	collapse, failed
Call at	visit a place
Call up	remember
Fall back upon	depend on
Fall away	drop
Take after	resemble
Take off	put off start
Take on	accept

Call a spade a spade.
Take French leave etc.

b) **Nouns: idioms rebuilt around nouns** e.g. a bolt from the

- An unexpected shock, a chip off the old block- exactly like one's father; a dog in manager- selfish, crocodile tears – hypothetical action
- Sword of demons – impending danger
- A Pandora's box – any source of great and unexpected troubles.
- An utopian project – a fanciful unreasonable project

(C) **Prepositional idioms** – could also go for verbal idioms e.g.

For ages for long time

Of age - old

Come of age- attains one's maturity

Cast an aspersion on - slander, defame

Broad over - think deeply over a problem

Colloquial idioms i.e. used in colloquial context e.g.

A (A-one) - Excellent, first class

Alive and kicking - very lively and active

Bad egg - a worthless disreputable person.

Call it quite - reared the scores as settled

Face the music - face unpleasant consequences

For keeps – deep it

Hot water – trouble.

Idioms composed of pair of words e.g.

Two mains joined by a conjunction “and” e.g.

All and sundry- collectively X individually

Beck and call- ready to obey

In black and white-in writing

Hue and cry- noise

Null and void- worthless, ineffective

Kith and kin- relatives

Left and right- on all sides

Under key and lock- safe

Far and wide- everywhere

Safe and sound-very secure

Well and good- all right

Hush-hush- confidential, secret

Miscellaneous idioms. You can find some of these coming under prepositional and adverbial idioms e.g.

In the event of- in case of

In view of- in place of

On the eve of- just before

Over and again- repeatedly

At first sight - first contact/meeting

At daggers drawn – in a state of hostility

At his finger tip- master thoroughly

Between you and me – confidential

Under duress – compulsions

Without reservation – whole heartedly, fully.

Note: Good idiomatic expressions enrich and improve the tone of your sentences.

Denotation and connotation; meanings of words in context. Usually a word has two kinds of meaning i.e. denotative and connotative. Denotative meaning of murder – terminate life (kill) while connotative meaning means doing a thing for no just cause. By denotative we mean a literal or surface meaning. Connotative, on the other hand means the meaning derived from the context.

UNIT SEVEN:

WRITING

An adage goes as follows: If speaking makes us humans, writing makes us civilized. The ability to write is the true mark of literacy and not to be able to write is to invite personal embarrassment. In comparison with speaking, writing is a more tasking academic exercise but it holds many advantages for the student.

The paragraph

The paragraph could be defined as a group of sentences which discuss or develop an idea. That means that a paragraph is a number of sentences which together explain a single point. It is in rare cases to find one sentence paragraphs. Perhaps, only in business letters that one sentence paragraph is acceptable. While each of the introduction and conclusion in an essay needs not exceed one paragraph, the main body is organized into a number of paragraphs.

Paragraph unity

This means that all the sentences in a paragraph centre on the same idea. No other idea is introduced in any part of the paragraph. The presence of another idea is indeed an indication that a paragraph needs to be split. It may also mean that a transitional paragraph is needed to remove the unnecessary element clogging the paragraph. There is nothing wrong in discussing one idea in more than one paragraph provided the paragraphs discussing the same idea are properly linked. Such linking signals as ‘furthermore’ ‘moreover’ and ‘in addition’, could be used to indicate the continuity. By concentrating on one idea for each paragraph and linking up the whole successive paragraphs, you will ensure the unity of the whole essay.

Coherence and Transitional Signals

The cementing together of the sentences that develop the idea in a paragraph is termed coherence. Your reader should not be left to wonder or guess what a particular sentence is contributing to the development of the paragraph. It should be clearly shown why one sentence should be written before the other.

Transitional Signals

Some words and phrases used to effect coherence in different modes of expression of writing are listed below. They are called transitional signals.

i. Introduction:

To start with, in the first place, firstly, to begin, taking off from here.

ii. **Cause-Effect Relationship**

Because, as a result, consequently, following, accordingly, according to, in accordance with, as a follow up, from the foregoing, thus, if .. then, under these circumstances, working on this assumption, in order to, having said that, having done that, in reaction, as a feed back, in response to, etc. eg.

I had a cold because I stayed out late.

Consequently I was taken to the hospital.

iii. **Comparison**

in comparison, similarity, in like manner, in this way, in the same vein. Likewise etc.

iv. **Contrast**

Conversely, in contrast, yet, but, on the contrary, on the other hand, however, nevertheless, despite, in spite of, etc.

v. **Example:**

for example, for instance, to illustrate, as an illustration, thus, namely etc.

vi. **Emphasis and continuity**

indeed, in fact, likewise, moreover, furthermore, next, in addition, also actually, really, etc.

vii. **Sequence** Chronological order of events

firstly, first, secondly, second, afterwards, immediately, after, thirdly, third etc. then. Next, later, finally, lastly, in quick succession, a little later, much later, meanwhile, thereafter.

viii. **Summary and Conclusion**

in conclusion, to sum up, in summary, to summarize, in short, in a nutshell, to round up.

xi. **Word Repetition and Pronoun use**

The words that are repeated and the pronouns that represent the nouns also help cement together the different ideas and sentences in an essay into a coherent text.

Topic Sentence and the Paragraph

The topic sentence states your main point or controlling idea in the paragraph. The sentences that explain this main point are called **supporting details**. These details may be facts, reasons, or examples that provide further information about or support for the topic sentence. If you were to write a paragraph based on: 'I think you are making a mistake if you decide to marry Adu', would at the same time form the topic sentence and all of your reasons and examples would be supporting details.

A paragraph is therefore a unit of thought that deals with a single main idea in a unified way. The first sentence of a paragraph is indented five letter spaces from the left margin to signal the reader that a new idea is about to begin. In general, a paragraph should stay focused on this idea, not switching from point to point. It should also be of a manageable length for your readers to digest. Short paragraphs can be skimpy and underdeveloped. And the overly long ones can be hard for the reader to follow.

Purpose and Thesis Statement

Often, finding a purpose means asking yourself, 'why am I writing this piece?' each writing situation has a specific goal. Perhaps, you want your reader/audience to see what you saw, feel what you felt, or think what you thought. To achieve your goal you need a definite strategy. Therefore, goal plus strategy equals purpose.

In your purpose statement you identify exactly what you want to do. In your thesis, you announce exactly what you want to say. Your thesis statement makes a definite commitment. It tells readers what to expect by making your view point crystal clear.

Paragraph Linking

Each paragraph of a piece of composition cannot operate or be treated as an island. Indeed, it is a part of the whole composition. All the words and phrases that signal internal paragraph cohesion could also be used to link different paragraphs.

Paragraph Development

To develop a paragraph you could do one or more of the following:

- i. Add details to the opening or topic sentence
- ii. Show in successive sentences more and more precisely what the opening sentence means.

- iii. Produce proof or evidence in support of what the opening sentences states.
- iv. Give examples
- v. Show various viewpoints in turn when the opening sentence indicates that various viewpoints are possible.
- vi. Answer the question posed by the opening sentence. Note: the opening sentence is very important since in most cases it is the main idea of the paragraph while other sentences add details to develop the idea.

Transitional Paragraph

While most of your paragraphs are developed along the outline you have already prepared, some of the things you might want to say may not fit into any of the outlines and may therefore become extraneous to the paragraph. This is how transitional paragraph comes about since it is the 'bridge' between what has been discussed and what is to come. You are, therefore, required to review briefly what you have said or done so far and then state your next line of action. It helps the reader to follow the trend of your writing.

Example VII Transitional Paragraph - Argument

Having reviewed my opponents' view, I will now oppose the motion. Already, you have seen that the 'discipline' from three perspectives: the family, the school, and the society...

Example VIII Transitional Paragraph- Description/Comparison and Contrast.

From the foregoing description of my new school, you can see that there exists wide gulf between your present school which is my former school and my present school. Whether we talk about the material or human sources, your school stands at a disadvantage as could be seen in the details to be presented below.

Concluding Paragraph

This is usually the last paragraph of a composition. It brings your discussion or story to a close and should therefore show the summary of the points you have made. A note of emphasis on the salient points should be sounded by the conclusion. Furthermore, the conclusion could draw attention to the main achievement of the writings or discussion. It expresses the end of the story. Similarly, it could express feeling arising from what has been discussed. The conclusion, should be drawn from the write-up and like the introduction, it should not be far-fetched.

Example IX Conclusion Paragraph

Chairman Sir, ladies and Gentlemen, in conclusion, let me categorically state that abolishing mixed secondary schools has nothing to do with the eradication of indiscipline. Instead, mixed secondary school should be encouraged for its numerous advantages. However, if abolishing mixed secondary school will raise the standard of discipline, then we should go ahead and abolish other mixed social units such as the families, primary schools and higher institutions of learning and let all boys and men remain separated from all girls and women.

Thank you for listening.

EXERCISE

Write a concluding paragraph for any topic of your choice.

Description

In a description, the writer is faced with the question: “What does the object, scene or situation look like?” recall that in narration the question is “What happened/happens?” it is necessary to keep the distinction in mind because you will find much dovetailing between the two modes of writing. As in narration the writer could or may be required by the examiner or the real situation to adopt either the objective or the impressionistic description.

EXERCISE: Describe the premises of Federal University Lafia.

Describing a Space or Static Object

This will be discussed under two broad headings: objective and impressionistic description. Each will be further divided into organization and style. Let us start with objective description.

Objective Description of Space or Static Object.

(a) Organization

The introduction should present a strong form in thesis, the object of writing or the problems the writing aims at solving. It needs not be motivating or provocative for that is not the reader’s interest. The whole presentation should be logical, consistent and systematic.

Usually, the spatial approach could be adopted. Note that ‘spatial’ is the adjective derived from the noun: space. Spatial approach, therefore, means systematic space coverage in description such as describing from top to bottom, from left to right, large to small, whole to parts and vice versa. If you want to describe a building, for instance, by spatial approach, it will be necessary for you to first describe the whole environment to put the building

in the context of its background. Then you describe the appearance of the whole building in relation to the environment, highlighting the main features of the building and the environment. Details of height, colour and colour combination, materials used in construction and the fittings could be highlighted. The compass points should also be indicated.

Thereafter, you could describe each of the inner apartments giving details of width, length and height, colour and colour combination, ceiling and wall materials, interior decoration, equipments or furniture and fittings. Furthermore, you might describe the utility value of suitability of each of the apartments, perhaps each room or section could take a paragraph. A suitable conclusion could be an assessment of the utility value of the building. We must note that the details you need to bring out in your description will depend on your purpose. For instance, if you are describing for a contractor to be able to construct it, you may play down on the furniture and fittings and concentrate on the sizes, quality and quantity of material and space.

b. Style

That the language employed in describing a space or static object should be simple, clear, precise and denotative cannot be over-emphasized. Technical words and expression are also necessary because they give precise meanings.

However, if such terms are difficult, they must be explained or defined. The operative words are mainly adjectives and nouns and not the verbs. Both the active and passive constructions are effective though more of the passive may be desirable. Personal pronoun may not be effective.

Further, you should prefer sentences that are short, simple, and straight to the point. The presence simple form of the verb should be preferred. Figurative or flowery expression is generally avoided. For descriptive writings are more ambitious than mere answers to an examination composition questions. Figures, diagrams and tables help to make the description more effective.

Example II Model

Question:

Write a letter to a friend of yours describing the hostel accommodation to be allocated to you after your matriculation.

An introductory paragraph is given below as an example.

Boy, you must count yourself lucky as your prospective University has planned to throw you into a world of luxury, as you will see in my description of the hostel already reserved for you and three others. A four – bedroom bungalow wearing a lovely flower hedge around it, resting coolly under the canopy of shade trees and surrounded by a beautiful wall becomes yours as soon as you arrive and pay the accommodation fee.

Paragraphs of the main body of the essay should describe the external features and fittings and the different apartments, their furniture and fittings.

Exercise: Describe one of the rooms.

Expository Writing

Most of the time, you are writing or speaking exposition, that is giving explanation. Your textbooks are usually written in expository prose since they aim at explaining the subject matter to you. Books in history, geography, government, economics, biology and others are usually written in expository prose, which enables them to instruct and inform you on different topics.

Therefore, an expository writer aims at explaining to the readers a subject matter of which he possesses a superior knowledge. Since the writer is knowledgeable in the subject matter, he does his best to clearly educate or inform his readers/audience and to actually demonstrate that he is not lacking in that knowledge.

In order to explain effectively, you need to adopt appropriate mode of writing for the subject matter and the level of the audience. For instance, you need to define difficult or technical terms, make some comparison and contrast with what the audience is already familiar, illustrate abstract ideas or theories with concrete examples, present and interpret data, establish cause-effect relationship, analyze cases and so on. You should also use the language that matches the level of understanding of the reader/audience.

UNIT EIGHT

FIGURES OF SPEECH

Figurative language is the type of language used by poets to capture their feelings in a rather indirect way. Literary artists do not just write for its sake; rather they do to achieve certain aims. As such, they embellish their expressions with figures of speech which are cornerstones of literature. It is a speech pattern that goes beyond the literal meaning of an utterance. In the words of Agyekum, figurative language is:

Figures of speech and word combinations that go beyond literal (denotative) meaning; it is an intentional departure from the normal order, construction, usage and meaning of words so as to create a pictorial effect on the audience and readers. Examples include metaphor, simile, personification, apostrophe, irony, hyperbole, metonym, synecdoche, etc. (140-1)

Figures of speech can be said to be expressions or words that are used to express more than their ordinary or literal meaning so as to make the idea with which they are used very emphatic and effective. A figure of speech, in another view, is a departure from the literal use of an expression. It can be used both in written and oral literature. Figures of speech are ornaments used in decorating communication pieces so that the attention of readers and audience is attracted and sustained. The commonest figures of speech are listed below:

1. Simile

A simile is a direct comparison of two things as a result of some qualities which they have in common. The comparative words “like” and “as” are often used to link the terms, things or ideas being compared. Examples include:

- a. Okonkwo is as slippery as fish in water.
- b. Mr Dodo is as tall as a palm tree.
- c. My shoes are as black as charcoal.
- d. Musa fights like a tiger.

2. **Metaphor**

This is an indirect way of comparing two things. It is a contracted simile with the elimination of comparative words, “like” and “as”. See some examples below:

- a. Mr Dogo is a palm tree.
- b. Musa is a tiger.
- c. The man has a heart of stone.
- d. That girl is a pig.

3. **Personification**

This is giving the qualities or attributes of a human being to an inanimate object. That is, treating a non-living thing as a human being or giving it human representation. Examples are:

- a. Love is blind.
- b. Luck was on my side yesterday.
- c. The sun travelled from East to West.
- d. The wind wept and the trees stood tall as Achebe’s remains were being interred.

4. **Hyperbole**

This is deliberate or conscious use of exaggeration to emphasize, achieve a humorous effect or to heighten effect. Examples:

- a. Isah is taller than a palm tree.
- b. When he was young, his mouth was so big that he had to be fed with a shovel.
- c. Ibrahim runs faster than a cheetah.
- d. He drank a drum of water.
- e. I shall spend a million years gazing into her eyes.

5. **Euphemism**

This is a pleasant way of saying something unpleasant. It is a way of using indirect expression in the place of a direct one in order to avoid being blunt. Euphemisms are roundabout way of expressing verbal taboos. They are expressions that

neutralize the offensiveness of an issue by presenting them in pleasant ways. Issues such as death, sex and menstruation are the most euphemized in communication. Examples include:

- a. The lady passed on last night. (died)
- b. The gentle men on the road operated there yesterday. (armed robbers)
- c. Aishat has been put in a family way. (impregnated)
- d. As she stood to address the audience, her monthly visitor came calling. (menstruation)

6. Synecdoche

This is using a part of a person or thing to stand for a whole or the whole is made to stand for a part. The part representing the whole is usually inseparable from the latter (the whole), e.g.

- a. Nigeria defeated Ghana in the match.
- b. Two heads are better than one.
- c. We employed good hands to do the job.
- d. Lend a hand to those in need.
- e. In a team, all hands must be on deck.

7. Irony

This is saying the exact opposite of what is meant. Verbal irony implies that what is said is the opposite of the intended. For example:

- a. If one says “you are right on time” to somebody who comes late for a meeting, one is just being ironical.
- b. The last will be the first and the first last.
- c. Zaccheaus was the tallest man in history.
- d. There are many refuse dump sites in that area, it is the neatest town indeed.

8. Paradox

This is a statement that seems absurd, untrue or contradictory on the surface, but on a closer look, contains important and deeper truth. Examples include:

- a. Unless a grain of wheat falls into the ground and dies, it remains alone, but if it dies, it produces much grain.
- b. Attack is the best form of defence.
- c. The egg is the father of the cock.

9. **Oxymoron**

This is the use of two opposite words or ideas together.

- a. She moaned in the painful pleasure of the act for a longer period.
- b. He wept for joy on being reunited with his wife.
- c. She is just a living corpse.
- d. Have you read Ola Rotimi's *Hopes of the Living Dead*?
- e. As I arrived the man's compound, I saw a lonely crowd.
- f. Her utterance elicited a loud silence in the audience.

10. **Metonymy**

This literary device uses an object commonly associated with a person or a thing to describe him/her or it. For example:

- a. The young skirts and trousers over there are in love.
- b. The crown loves all his subjects.
- c. The gown has to impact on the town.

11. **Alliteration**

Alliteration is the repetition of the same consonant sound in quick succession in a group of words within the same line in order to create sound effect. For example:

- a. After life's fitful fever he sleeps well. (Shakespeare's *Macbeth* cited in Umukoro et al (2002))
- b. Some students started smoking since 1960.

12. **Assonance**

Assonance is the succession of a given vowel sound in a line of verse or prose sentence.

- a. The bat is back in a bad basket.

- b. The dog hopes to eat more bones as it roams.

13. **Rhetorical Question**

This is a question asked to which no answer is required. E.g.

- a. Who does not like prosperity?
- b. Why are we here?
- c. When gold rusts, what will iron do?
- d. Who will bell the cat?

14. **Apostrophe**

Apostrophe is a direct address or appeal to a person who is not physically present, or an object which has no tendency of listening. This is especially used in poetry. Examples include:

- a. Death, you are wicked!
- b. Nigeria, my fatherland, you shall be great.
- c. Death, where is thy sting?

15. **Onomatopoeia**

This literary device is the formation of words in imitation of the actual sound that is made. Examples are: mew, hiss, buzz, splash, boom, etc.

These are not the only figures of speech in English. Students are, therefore, encouraged to find more of them in their personal study in order to enrich the use of English.